

ENG508

Finals Compilation 2024

Chapter wise short&Long ques

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LESSON 19

1. Define Situational Context?

The situational context is the immediate physical correspondence, the situation where the interaction is taking place at the moment of speaking e.g. people talking on the phone and making gestures with their hands or face.

For example, 'Go right John'. (Indicating to right side). The hearer and speaker do not share the situational context, so the gestures do not add meaning to the words. Situational Context also involves 'setting' as we see setting of a talk show, a drama or a movie.

2. Difference between cultural & interpersonal knowledge?

Cultural	Interpersonal
Cultural knowledge is general knowledge that most of the people carry with them in their minds about areas of life, e.g. religion, ethics; good vs bad, manners, etc	Interpersonal knowledge is knowledge acquired through previous verbal interactions or joint activities and experiences. It includes privileged personal knowledge about the interlocutor
For example, I say to my friend 'Let's go to Masjid'. In a Muslim Community, I surely mean 'to go for prayer'.	for example, I ask my friend, 'Do you have a watch?' In this example, 'do you have a watch?' can be interpreted as 'what's the time by your watch?'

3. Briefly explain co-textual context?

The context of the text itself is known as co-text. For example, ‘She is talking to her boss.’ We see, in this example ‘her’ is pointing back to ‘She’. The words used in the conversation give enough knowledge about ‘what has been mentioned before?’ and ‘what is going to be?’ The co-text of a word is the set of other words used in the same phrase or sentence. Co-text limits the range of possible interpretations we might have for a word. Consider a complicated example to understand co-textual context. ‘She met (her) school teacher.’

4. What is meant by the exploration of context?

Exploration in the text is not possible until we understand each and every factor separately. Here, we will study some of the factors. The text usually contains sociolinguistics aspect of speech acts; and affected by the social differences, i.e. gender, class, religion. For example, a person with limited social exposure can’t understand an elite communication about cars-brands, etc. because he has never heard these names in his community. The exploration of the text focuses on three points: conversation analysis, international sociolinguistics and social context.

LESSON 20

1. Define reference & its types?

Reference is a broader term which covers Exophora, Endophora, Anaphora, Cataphora and Grammatical Cohesion. The speaker uses linguistic forms, known as referring expressions, to enable the hearer to identify the entity being referred to, which is known as the referent.

Words themselves do not refer to anything, people refer. For example: ‘Mr. Aftershave is late today.’

Exophora refers to the context which does not exist inside the text. When there is no previous mention of the reference in the preceding text, we call it exophoric reference. Exophora is dependent on the context outside the text, e.g. proper nouns, etc.

Endophora:

The expressions which are used to refer an item within the same text is known as Endophoric reference. For example, ‘I met John, he has just come from England.’

There are two types of Endophora: Anaphora and Cataphora.

Anaphora: If the expressions i.e. them, this, us link back to something that went before in the preceding text, it is known as anaphoric reference.

Cataphoric expressions link forward to a referent in the text that follows. This type is opposite to anaphora.

2. Define deixis ? write its types?

Deixis is referring expression which points to the referent in the context (whether interlocutors can see it or not), it is known as deixis. There are three types of deixis: Person, Place, Time.

3. Grammatical cohesion & its types?

Grammatical cohesion is what keeps the text together. Example 'I had called the both John and Liza but she remained absent' shows the importance of grammatical cohesion. If the speaker skips pronoun 'she', the hearer would not be able to infer 'who is being talked about?' i.e. 'I had called the both but ___ was absent' seems ambiguous.

Substitution helps the writer or speaker to hold the text together and avoid repetition. So, also, as well, too, etc. are sometimes used as substitute words.

Ellipsis: The other form of grammatical cohesion is Ellipsis. It is omitting a word that is not necessary for the text. Just like substitution, ellipsis avoids repetition and depends on the hearer or reader's ability to retrieve the missing words from the surrounding co-text.

4. Which lexical devices help to maintain cohesion in text?

Lexical devices help to maintain cohesion in the text; i.e. Repetition, Synonyms, Subordinates, and General words.

repetition; repeated words or word-phrases, threading through the text. Substitution and Ellipsis avoid repetition; lexical repetition exploits it for stylistic effect.

. **Synonym is;** instead of repeating the same exact words, a speaker or writer can use another word that means the same or almost the same. The general word is a higher level **superordinate:** it is the umbrella term that can cover almost everything. These can be general nouns, i.e. person, place, thing;
general verb, i.e. do and happen, etc. For example, 'do it.' may be inferred as 'killing, cooking or purchasing.'

LESSON 21

1. Define cooperative principle by Grice?

Grice (1975) posited a general set of rules, contributors to the ordinary conversation; called Cooperative Principle (CP). He (1989) stated, 'Make your conversational contribution such as, is required, at the stage at which it occurs, by the accepted purpose or direction of the talk exchange in which you are engaged'. Grice never intended his use of the word 'cooperation' to indicate an ideal view of communication.

2. Define Four conversational maxims?

Maxim of quantity – says that speaker should be as informative as is required. They should give neither too little information nor too much. Maxim of Quality – information provided in conversation to be genuine and justified. Maxim of relation – says that speakers are assumed to be saying something that is relevant to what has been said before. Maxim of manner – says that we should be brief and orderly, and avoid obscurity and ambiguity.

3. What did you mean by flouting the maxims?

When speakers appear not to follow the maxims but expect hearer to appreciate the meaning implied, we say that they are flouting. For instance, in Britain, it's quite common to say, 'Do you find it's getting a bit chilly in here?' and mean 'I want to put the fire on'. When flouting a maxim, the speaker assumes that the hearer knows that their words should not be taken at face value and they can infer the implicit meaning (Cutting, 2002).

Flouting quantity – the speaker who flouts this maxim seems to give too little or too much information.

Flouting quality – speaker may do it in several ways e.g. exaggerating as in hyperbole, using metaphor, irony, and banter.

Flouting relation - the hearer will be able to imagine what the utterances did not say, and make the connection between their utterances,

Flouting manner – speaker appears to be obscure, often trying to exclude a third party

4. Violations of maxims?

Violating the maxim Quantity – Husband: How much did that new dress cost? Wife: Less than the last one. Here, the wife covers up the price of the dress by not saying how much; thus, not giving the required information to the husband and violating maxim of quantity.

Violating the maxim Quality – Considering the same example, the wife when asked How much did that new dress cost? It could have violated the maxim of quality by not being sincere and giving him the wrong information i.e. thirty-five hundred rupees.

Violating the maxim relation – Similarly, in answer to How much did that new dress cost? the wife tries to distract him and change the topic saying: I know, let's go out tonight. Now, where would you like to go? This shows the violation of the maxim of relation. **Violating the maxim manner** – In answer to How much did that new dress cost?, if she said that a tiny fraction of my salary, though probably a bigger fraction of the salary of the women that sold it to me, Hoping that it could be taken as an answer and the matter could be dropped. It is, thus, like the wife answers the question in a way that could be said to be **violating the maxim of manner**, in that she says everything except what the husband wants to know.

5. Limitations of the cooperative principle?

Despite the care with which he used the term cooperation, “Grice is regularly accused of promulgating a theory that assumes too friendly a spirit of communicative interaction among people. For example, Tannen (1986) claims that Grice’s maxims of cooperative discourse can’t apply to real conversations”. In conversation, —we wouldn’t want to simply blurt out what we mean, because we’re judging the needs for involvement and independence (Tannen, 1986). He assumes that Grice’s maxims are prescriptions that conversations must follow strictly in order to be considered cooperative. Another problem with the cooperative principle is that there is often an overlap between the four maxims. It can be difficult to say which one is operating or there are two or more operating at once. Another major objection to Grice’s model is different cultures, countries and communities have their own ways of observing and expressing maxims for particular situations.

LESSON 22

1. What is relevance theory ? write down its principles?

Relevance theory emerged in 1980s in the collaborative work of Wilson and Sperber proposes that conversational implicature is understood by hearers simply by selecting the relevant features of context and recognizing whatever speakers say as relevant to the conversation. This theory is seen as a pragmatic theory because of its focus on the use of language in communication specifically, on the relationship between meaning and context. It is also a cognitive theory, in that it is concerned with the relationship between language and mind.

2. Difference between explicature & implicature?

Implicature	explicature
An implicature is something that is built from what the speaker says in uttering the sentence. These conceptions sound similar enough, so how do they differ? Explicatures and implicatures (implicit premises and conclusions) are arrived at by a process of mutual parallel adjustment, with hypotheses about both being considered in order of accessibility.	Explicature is directly conveyed content - orally and graphologically form of an utterance. On the other hand, implicature is something which is implied in an utterance. It could mean that a speaker means one thing and conveys something else in addition. It is a hidden concept.

3. Explain conceptual- procedural meaning?

The conceptual-procedural distinction was introduced into relevance theory by Diane Blakemore (1987) to account for differences between regular ‘content’ words (such as dog, red, think or know, on the one hand) and discourse connectives (such as but, so, also, and after all, on the other). The vast majority of lexical items have conceptual meaning, including common nouns (‘chair’, ‘water’, etc.), verbs (‘consider’, ‘leap’, etc.), adjectives (e.g. ‘red’, ‘slow’, etc.), adverbs (‘sadly’, ‘quickly’, etc.), and prepositions (‘behind’, ‘under’, etc.). Two ways to distinguish between conceptual and procedural meaning (Wilson and Sperber, 1993: 16): (a) Conceptual meaning is available to consciousness, whereas procedurally encoded information is not. (b) Conceptual meaning is compositional, whereas procedurally encoded information is not.

4. Limitations of relevance theory?

Limitations of Relevance Theory are: This theory says nothing about interaction. It does not include cultural or social dimensions, such as age, gender, status, and nationality. An objection that one may have to Sperber and Wilson’s model, as with Grice’s Cooperative Principle model, is that different cultures, countries and communities have their own ways of observing, and expressing maxims.

5. Communicative principle of relevance ?

Communicative Principle of Relevance is an attempt to work out one of Grice’s central claims that an essential feature of most human communication, both verbal and non-verbal, is the expression and recognition of intentions. We keep on producing stimuli which gain other people’s attention and thus lay the ground for communication. It is the tendency to maximize relevance that makes it possible to predict and manipulate the mental states of others knowing your tendency to pick out the most relevant inputs.

LESSON 23

1. What is implicature ? define its types?

Implicature - —any meaning conveyed indirectly or through hints, and understood implicitly without ever being explicitly stated (Grundy, 2000). It covers the family of verbs such as ‘imply, suggest, mean’, which refer to the meaning of an utterance as understood in a given context. Implicature: a neology by Paul Grice (1913- 1988) - British language philosopher who made remarkable contributions to the field of pragmatics. His most influential work relates to his analysis of speaker meaning and his account of conversational implicature.

Types:

Conversational Implicature

generalized conversational implicature

scalar implicature

2. Note on scalar implicature?

A scalar implicature is a quantity implicature based on the use of an informationally weak term in an implicational scale. Scalar implicatures arise in examples e.g. 'Some professors are famous' where the speaker's use of 'some' typically indicates that s/he had reasons not to use a more informative term, e.g. 'all'. 'Some professors are famous, therefore, gives rise to the implicature that not all professors are famous. Similarly, in the utterance, 'Some of the boys went to the party', the word 'some' implicates 'not all of the boys went to the party'.

3. Conversational implicature?

Conversational Implicature is implied by the speaker in making an utterance; it is part of the content of the utterance; it does not contribute to direct (or explicit) utterance content, and it is not encoded by the linguistic meaning of what has been uttered. For example, Sara: will you eat some of this chocolate cake? Amna: I'm on a diet. Here, Amna asserts that she is on a diet, and implicates that she will not cake. Conversational Implicature is a subset of the implications of an utterance: namely those that are part of utterance content.

LESSON 24

1. Properties of conversational implicature?

Non-detachability - a conversational implicature is attached to the semantic content of what is said, not to the linguistic form i.e. it is possible to use a synonym and keep the implicature intact. It will not be detached from the utterance as a whole, even though the specific words may be changed. Reinforceability - Implicatures can be reinforced, e.g. John answered most of the questions. But he wasn't able to answer the last question. (not redundant) Non-conventionality - implicature is not carried by what is said, but only by the saying of what is said, or by 'putting it that way.' Calculability – speakers try to convey conversational implicatures and hearers are able to understand them suggests that implicatures are calculable.

2. Difference between conventional & conversational implicature?

Conventional implicature involves inherent additional meaning tied to specific words or phrases, independent of context (e.g., "but" in "John ate the cake, but he didn't finish it").

Conversational implicature, context-dependent, arises through pragmatic reasoning during a conversation, where speakers convey meaning beyond literal words for effective communication (e.g., implying family size from "I have two children" in a relevant context).

3. Properties of conventional properties?

Non-truth-conditionality - conventional implicature do not make any contribution to truth conditions e.g. a) we want peace and they want war. b) we want peace but they want war. Both a and b shares the same truth conditions. Conventional implicature is associated with speaker or utterance rather than a sentence. Conventional implicatures are not derived from Grice's Cooperative principle and its component maxims but are attached by convention to a particular lexical item or linguistic construction. They are, therefore, an arbitrary part of the meaning, and must be learned ad hoc. Conventional implicatures are not calculable via any natural procedure but are rather given by convention, thus they must be stipulated. They are not cancelable i.e. they cannot be defeated. They are (arguably) detachable because they are depending on the particular linguistic items used.

4. Difference between strong & weak implicature?

Strong implicature is a communicated implication of an utterance which is the main communicative point of the utterance. The idea is that sometimes a speaker intends that her hearer grasp a particular implication without which the utterance would not be relevant. Strong implicature is implicature that is related directly by the spoken utterances or is that premises and conclusions which the hearer is strongly encouraged but not actually forced to supply.

Weak Implicature is a communicated implication of an utterance which is not by itself the main communicative point of the utterance. The idea is that for some utterances a hearer can understand what a speaker is trying to communicate even if he fails to get one or more implicatures. Weak implicature is the weaker the encouragement, and the wider the range of possibilities among which the hearer can choose, the weaker the implicatures. For example, John: What are you planning to do today? Mary: I'm tired.

LESSON 25

1. What is deixis ? write a brief note on its types?

Deixis is also known as the ‘Indexicality of language’ as it operates as indexes of specific meaning in a context. These are the common words in our language that can’t be interpreted at all if we don’t know the context, especially, the physical context e.g. spatial deixis (here, there, this, that), temporal deixis (now, then), person deixis (you, me, she, him), etc.

Types:

Spatial deixis are used to indicate the relative location of people and things. Also known as ‘place deixis’. Some pure place deictic words are: here and there (adverbs); this and that (demonstrative pronouns).

Person Deixis an expression used to point to a person (me, you, him, them) is an example of person deixis. Person deixis operates on a basic three part division, exemplified by the pronouns for first person (—I , me, mine), second person (you, your, yours), and third person (he, she, it). A speech event includes at least two persons: First person = speaker and Second person = addressee

Social deixis is concerned with the codification of the social status of the speaker, addressee, or a third person or entity referred to as well as the social relationships holding between them (Levinson 1983; Fillmore 1997; Manning 2001). It may include social class, kin relationship, age, sex, profession, and ethnic group.

Temporal deixis is also known as ‘time deixis’. It is concerned with the encoding of the temporal points and spans relative to the time at which an utterance is produced in a speech act (Huang, 2014). It includes time adverbs e.g. now, then, soon, last week, today, tonight, yesterday, tomorrow, etc. ‘Now’ indicates both the time coinciding with speaker’s utterance and the time of the speaker’s voice being heard.

LESSON 26

1. What is meant by discourse deixis?

Discourse deixis is also called text deixis. In discourse deixis, there are words that make reference to some statement or utterance to point to the current, preceding or following utterances in the same spoken or written discourse, e.g. ‘the next chapter’, ‘in the last paragraph’, etc. (Huang, 2014). There are many words and phrases, in English, that indicate the relationship between utterance and the prior discourse such as but, therefore, in conclusion, to the contrary, still, however, anyway, well, besides, actually, all in all, so, after all, etc.

2. What is deictic reference?

Deictic Reference is the use of gestures or other means of pointing to specify an ambiguous utterance, for instance, pointing at a place in a map

and saying —here.‖ This property of language is called indexicality, and the lexical items that encode context in the way are called deictics. Indexical: the role of context in helping to determine reference For instance, if in a lecture, I were to deliver (2), the three stressed yous in the second part of the utterance would be accompanied by gestures and/or eye contact of some kind. Each would pick out a different referent whose identity would be known only by those present at the time of my utterance. But in (3) you has a much more general the reference.

3. Limits of indexicality?

Fixedness of deictic center poses a particular problem when we want to quote what others have said to us. Imagine my son says to my daughter: (1) Why don't you want to come to the park with me? When she reports his utterance to me, she has a choice of several ways to represent this deictic property as:

(2) Eddie said, why don't you want to come to the park with me?

(3) Eddie asked why I didn't want to come to the park with him.

(4) Eddie complained that I didn't want to go to the park with him. In (3) the deictic center is partly projected from Eddie's original perspective – she encodes this projection in her use of I and him and didn't while her retention to come is still faithful to the deictic center of Eddie's utterance. Reported speech, like in (4), is important evidence of the existence of an unmarked deictic center, which as (1) and (4) show, is that of speaker's perspective even when the speaker is representing the speech of another person.

4. How pragmatics awareness can be raised in learners?

In order to understand the relation of language to its point of origin, let's practice this activity.

- 1) Form a small group which includes at least one person with a good knowledge of a language other than English. Ask this person to translate utterances containing a range of deictic phenomena into their other language and explain any problems or differences to you.
- 2) This exercise will work well in tutorial groups. Ask each member of the group to come with two consecutive sentences. These sentences can be chosen from any book whose indexical properties may be discussed.
- 2) this makes a good vacation task. If you get the opportunity to travel, watch out for uses of deictics that surprise you. If you aren't able to travel, try to mix with unfamiliar groups and see how they use we to show membership, or listen out for uses of this and that to encode psychological distance. Try to note down exactly what you heard or read and then report it to your tutorial group at the first meeting of new term.
- 4) Identify an occasion when you might expect to hear a variety of deictic ways of communicating what appears to be the same message –

in Britain, the announcements on trains are interesting as each company, even individual announcers, tries to encode their own notion of the common ground you and they share

LESSON 27

1. Difference between presupposition & entailment?

Presupposition	Entailment
A presupposition is something the speaker assumes to be the case prior to making an utterance. Speakers, not sentences, have a presupposition	An entailment is something that logically follows from what is asserted in the utterance. Sentences, not speakers, have entailments. We can identify some of the potentially assumed information associated with the utterance as in 1) Mary's brother bought three horses.

2. Types of presupposition?

1) **Existential Presupposition** is the assumption of the existence of the entities named by the speaker. They can be found in (i) Noun phrase, and (ii) **Possessive constructions**. For example, i) Noun phrase - —The car was broken‖ (Presupposes that the existence of the entity it refers to, in this case, is the —Car —). (ii) Possessive construction - e.g. "Tom's car is new‖ (we can presuppose that _Tom_ exists and that he has a car). 2)

Factive Presupposition is the assumption that something is true due to the presence of some verbs such as "know‖, "realize" and —glad‖, etc. (3) Non Factive Presupposition refers to something that is not true. (4)

Lexical Presupposition is an assumption that, in using one word, the speaker can act as another meaning (word).

Structural Presupposition - associated with the use of certain structures, e.g. Wh-question constructions. The listener perceives that the information presented is necessarily true, or intended to be true by the speaker.

Counterfactual Presupposition is an assumption that what is presupposed is not only untrue but is the opposite of what is true, or contrary to facts.

3. Define presupposition from the real word examples?

You may have noticed that small children acquiring English as a first language and some second language learners frequently produce

utterances like, 1. I have locked the door so someone does not get in' rather than I have locked the door so no one gets in'. Similarly, see the use of some' and any' below:

Example 1: Waiter: Would you like something to drink? Lady: Waiter: Madam would you like something to drink Lady: Sorry Waiter: Something to drink. Lady: Yes, please I'd like coffee.

LESSON 28

1. Speech act theory?

Speech act theory is similar to physical acts. People also perform acts by using language. Speech acts are acts of communication (such as an apology, complaint, compliment etc.) E.g. It's hot here' may be a request' instead of mere information about weather. Every time a speaker utters a sentence, he attempts to accomplish something with the words. Specifically, he intends to have some effect on the listener and he wants the listener to recognize this intention. Speaker and hearer are usually helped in this process by the context called speech events; determine the interpretation of an utterance as performing a particular speech act. Explicit performatives are performative utterances that contain a performative verb that makes explicit what kind of act is being performed and tend to begin with a first person singular I'. Implicit performatives are performative utterances in which there is no such verb. Constatives – are the statements that attempt to describe reality and can be judged true or false.

2. Austin's speech act theory?

The work of J. L. Austin-How to Do Things with Words - led philosophers to pay more attention to the non-declarative uses of language. The terminology he introduced, especially the notions "locutionary act", "illocutionary act", and "perlocutionary act", occupied an important role in what was then to become the "study of speech acts". For instance, (1) I bet you six pence it will rain tomorrow. (2) I apologize. (3) I sentence you to ten years of hard labor. (4) I give my word. These sentences are not used to describe some states of affairs, but to do certain things: to bet, to apologize, to pass sentence, and to promise, respectively. Facets of a speech act are Locutionary Act and Perlocutionary Act.

3. Five main types of speech act theory by Searle?

Representatives commit the speakers to the truth of the expressed proposition – state what the speaker believes to be the case or not (e.g. asserting, concluding, statements of fact) The earth is flat'. (statement of fact).

Directives are attempts by the speaker to get the addressee to do something – what the speaker wants (requesting, questioning).

Commissives commit the speaker to some future course of action – what s/he intends (promising, threatening, offering, refusing).

Expressive express a psychological state or what a speaker feels (thanking, apologizing, welcoming, congratulating).

Declarations effect immediate changes in the institutional state of affairs and which tend to rely on elaborate extra-linguistic institutions .

4. Direct & indirect speech act?

1. Direct Speech Act:

- In a direct speech act, the speaker's intended meaning is explicitly expressed in the form of a straightforward statement, question, command, or request.
- The illocutionary force, or the intended speech act, is clear and easily identifiable within the literal meaning of the words used.
- For example, saying "Please pass the salt" is a direct request, and the illocutionary force is the act of requesting.

2. Indirect Speech Act:

- In an indirect speech act, the speaker conveys their intended meaning implicitly, often by using language that may not directly match the illocutionary force.
- The hearer needs to infer the speaker's intention based on contextual clues, shared knowledge, or social conventions.
- For instance, saying "It's cold in here" could indirectly be a request to close the window, where the illocutionary force of the request is implied rather than explicitly stated.

LESSON 29

1. Cultural dimensions of speech act?

Speech acts and their linguistic realizations are culturally bound. The ways of expressing speech acts vary from country to country and from culture to culture. In India, for example, the expressive speech act of praising and congratulating a person on their appearance can be realized by the words such as: —How fat you are!! because the weight is an indicator of personality and health in a country where there is malnutrition. In Britain, these words express ‘deploring’ or ‘criticizing’, since the fashion and diet foods industries, and possibly health education

have conditioned many into thinking that —slim is beautiful. Differences in speech acts can cause difficulties cross-culturally.

2. Limitations of speech act theory?

When we try to categorize utterances in terms of speech acts, we often find that there is overlap. That one utterance can fall into more than one macro- class. Utterances such as so there you go and you know amount to filters that say very little; this lack of semantic contents makes it difficult to put in any of the classifications, as neither expressive nor representatives speech acts. Another similar example could be related to —Backchannel and —feedback, the responses that show that the hearer is listening and encouraging a speaker to continue talking, such as was it? and oh really do not fit neatly into the speech act model either. Similarly, see incomplete sentences as: But she didn't do the — er — no does not fit neatly into any category. A lot of what we say in everyday speech is left unfinished either because we have no need to complete the sentence or because we are interrupted.

3. Macro- functions of speech act theory?

Brown and Yule (1983) describe the transactional functions and the Interactional function of language.

The „**transactional**“ is the function which language serves in the expression of content and the transmission of factual information. The „**Interactional**“ is the function involved in expressing social relations and personal attitudes, showing solidarity and maintaining social cohesion.

LESSON 30

1. What is politeness theory?

Politeness generally refers to the ideas like being tactful, modest and nice to other people. In pragmatics, politeness can be defined as showing awareness and consideration of another person's face. Politeness means having or showing good manners and respect for the feelings of others. According to Yule (2010), politeness can be treated as a fixed concept, as in the idea of polite social behavior, or etiquette, within a culture. Within interaction, a specified type of politeness is at work, for which we need the concept of Face public self-image of a person – emotional and social sense of self that one expects everyone else to recognize. For example, Don't impose – I'm sorry to bother you but.... is a polite way. Politeness may not always be a matter of words but how you say them.

2. Difference face- threatening & face - saving act?

Face-threatening Act is if you say something that represents a threat to another person's self-image, that is called a face-threatening act, e.g.

__Give me that paper'.

Face-saving Act gives the possibility that some action might be interpreted as a threat to another's face, the speaker can say something to lessen the possible threat, e.g. __Could you pass me that paper' or __I'm dying for a drink. Yes, it's really hot. Isn't it?' In situations where a face-threatening act (FTA) could arise, the politeness strategy used will depend largely on the relationship between the speaker and the listener.

3. Negative and positive face - threatening acts?

Positive face - threatening	Negative face - threatening
Positive face-threatening acts are a direct challenge to the face of the listener.	Negative face-threatening acts occur when the speaker impinges on the listener's negative face.
They contain an indifference to the listener's self-image and include things such as threats, insults, and belittling the listener.	The speaker requires a verbal response or an action from the person s/he is addressing.

4. Off & on record?

Off record is when you decide to say something, you simply produce statement such as: [a] Uh, I forgot my pen. [b] Hmm, I wonder where I put my pen. These type of statements are not directly addressed to the other and the other can act as if the statements have not even been heard by them. Such indirect statements are technically described as being off-record. They might be referred to as __hints.

on-record – where you can directly address the other as a means of expressing your needs. The most direct approach, using imperative forms is known as bald on record. For instance, a person is directly asked: [a] Give me a pen. [b] Lend me your pen. Bald on record forms may be followed by expressions like __please' and __would you?' which serve to soften the demand and called mitigating devices.

5. Difference between positive and negative politeness?

A **positive politeness** strategy leads the requester to appeal to a common goal, even friendship, via expressions such as: [a] How about letting me use your pen? [b] Hey, buddy, I'd appreciate it if you'd let me use your pen. These expressions do represent a greater risk for the refusal. It may be preceded by some __getting to know you' talk, designed to establish the necessary common ground for this strategy.

Negative politeness is also used when speakers know they are impinging on a person's time and want to show respect. For example, stopping a person on the street for instance, to ask for directions requires negative politeness.

6. Politeness strategies?

Solidarity strategy is the tendency to use positive politeness, emphasizing closeness between the speaker and the hearer. It will include personal information, use of nicknames, sometimes even abusive terms (particularly among males), and shared dialect or slang expressions. A solidarity strategy will be marked via inclusive terms such as *'we'* and *'let's'*, for example in the party invitation as in: *'Come on, let's go to the party. Everyone will be there. We'll have fun'*.

Deference strategy is the tendency to use negative politeness forms, emphasizing the hearer's right to freedom. A deference strategy is involved in what is called *'formal politeness'*. It is impersonal, as if nothing is shared, and can include expressions that refer to neither the speaker nor the hearer e.g. *'Customers may not smoke here, sir'*.

Lesson 31

1. Define social & cultural context with example?

Social context:

The choice of the politeness formulation depends on the social distance and the power relation between speakers. When there is social distance, politeness is encoded and there is more indirectness. When there is less social distance, there is less negative politeness and indirectness.

Variables that determine social distance are: degree of familiarity and differences of status, roles, age, gender, education, class, occupation and, ethnicity. The degree of familiarity is that speakers know each other, do not need to use politeness strategies; if they use them, it can imply quite opposite of politeness. It is those of the lower status, the less dominant role and so on who use more indirectness and more negative politeness features, such as hedges and mitigation, than those with higher status and so on do. Expressions with bald on record are used by people who assume that they have got power.

Cultural context:

According to Tannen (1994), the use of indirectness can hardly be understood without the crosscultural perspective'. For example, in Cuba, friends should not show any distance at all, and to say *'thank you'* for a cup of coffee, *'maximizing praise of other'*, can cause offense as it

appears to put up barriers. Thomas (1995) mentions that Chinese hosts will choose a guest's menu for them and put the 'choicest pieces' on their plate, to show positive politeness. Similarly, in some Western cultures, refusal demands a specific excuse, if speakers are to avoid threatening positive face and 'minimize dispraise of other', whereas, in other cultures, this is not necessary.

2. Politeness with examples?

If the strategies presented do not appear appropriately contextualized it may be difficult to know how to use them. If a context is provided the learner has a better idea of how and when to use them.

For example, take the following dialogue: [FATHER: What sort of time do you call this?], [Boy: I'm sorry.], [FATHER: So you should be! It's 2 a.m.!), [Buy: Oh Dad, do stop nagging. I'm over seventeen. It's up to me what time I come in.], [FATHER: Not while you are living here, it isn't. Anyway, what on earth were you doing until 2 in the morning?], [Boy: We weren't doing anything. We were just talking.], [FATHER: I was worried about you.], [Boy: Honestly, Dad, I really am sorry, but you don't have to wait up for me, you know.....]

Lesson 32

1. What is conversational analysis?

Conversational analysis looks at ordinary everyday spoken discourse and aims to understand how people manage their interactions. It is the study of social interaction embracing both verbal and nonverbal conduct in everyday life. It is a rigorous investigation of features of a conversation, how it is generated and constructed, how it operates, what its distinguishing features are, and how participants construct their own meanings in the conversational situation. Conversations are multi-layered/multileveled. It examines different levels of meaning within a text. It also looks at the contents, sequence, evolution and, forms of the conversation .

Features of conversational analysis include, turn-taking, pauses, overlaps and backchannels, adjacency pairs, preference structures, and sequences expansion.

2. Turn taking in local management system?

Turn-taking operates in accordance with a local management system that is conventionally known by the members of a social group. This system is essentially a set of conventions for getting turns, keeping them, or giving them away; it is needed most at those points where there is a possible change in who has the turn. Turn-taking can be applied to conversations

where speakers cooperate and share the floor equally. Also be applied to conversations where there is competition, fighting to keep the floor and preventing others from getting it.

3. Adjacency pair?

A sequence of two related utterances by two different speakers' is known as adjacency pairs. The second utterance is always a response to the first. For instance: [A: You left the light on.], [B: It wasn't me!], [the sequence of complaint-denial = is an adjacency pair]. Types of Adjacency pairs are question-answer, greeting-greeting, Invitation or offer/acceptance/non-acceptance, complaint-apology/denial, summons-response, request-acceptance, promise or thanks-acknowledgement, and goodbye-goodbye.

. Delay in response marks potential unavailability of the immediate expected answer; it represents the distance between what is expected and what is provided.

4. Structure of adjacency pair?

Adjacency pairs represent social actions, and not all social actions are equal when they occur as second parts of some pairs, for example, [a question], [a partial answer], [a statement of ignorance], [a denial of the relevance of the question.], [a denial of its presupposition.]. For instance: [What does Joe do for a living?], [Do you need to know?], [Oh, this and that.], [I've no idea.], [What's that got to do with it?], [He does not do anything.]

A first part that contains a request or an offer has an expectation that the second part will be an acceptance; structurally more likely than refusal. This structural likelihood is called preference. Technically, preference is an observed pattern in talk and not a personal wish. Preference structure divides second parts into preferred (structurally expected next act) and dis-preferred (structurally unexpected next act) social acts.

5. What is pre-sequence ?

Pre-sequences are the opening sequences that are used to set up some specific potential actions. Conversations are opened in socially recognized ways. In the beginning of the conversation speakers normally greet each other, e.g. when two office workers meet in the morning: Ali: [Morning, Salman!], Salman: [Hi. How's it going?], Ali: [Oh, can't complain, I guess. Ready for the meeting this afternoon?], Salman: [Well, I don't have much choice!]

Lesson 33

1. Brief note on cross- cultural Pragmatic?

Cross cultural pragmatics is a subfield of pragmatics. Kasper and Blum-Kulka (1993) defined CCP as the study of linguistic acts by language users from different cultural backgrounds. Cross-cultural pragmatics aims at understanding the extent to which non-shared knowledge or in simple terms our schemas affect or modify the retrieval of intended meaning. CCP investigates how human behavior is translated into instances of language in use. Research has shown that a speaker's intended meaning, mediated by linguistic symbols, may be interpreted or misinterpreted in cross-cultural contexts due to each interactant's own norms of interpretation. CCP examines behaviors that are manifest or overt and others that are latent or covert. The values and beliefs are embedded in talk both at the micro and the macro level. Micro features include prosodic cues, turn taking, indirectness, nonverbal cues, etc.

Intercultural pragmatic?

Intercultural pragmatics is based on the socio-cognitive approach according to which, our mind exists simultaneously both in the head and in the world. Cross-cultural comparative studies of discourse have shown that rules of appropriateness vary across cultures. Thus, for learners to become truly effective communicators in a second language, they need to acquire these rules of appropriateness in addition to what we have come to call linguistic competence

Interlanguage pragmatics?

Interlanguage pragmatics focuses on the pragmatic development of second/ foreign languages learners as they seek to become proficient, successful users of the target language. ILP may be considered a sub-area of second language acquisition (SLA) and thus is inherently anchored in acquisition contexts. Learners and teachers need to understand interlanguage pragmatics (ILP) to facilitate our understanding of how people comprehend and communicate meaning beyond what is said in the target language. The interlanguage is a reduced system at the early stages of development. Interlanguage refers to intermediate, dynamic, and transient linguistic systems that, according to the theory, continue to develop over time as learners move closer and closer to attaining native-like proficiency. Learners progress along a trajectory towards their desired goal, sometimes regressing and sometimes making rapid progress. For instance, in academic speaking skills, the learners may struggle with conversational chat unless they live with a native speaker.

Referential communication?

Tarone and Swierzbins (2009: 68) chose to study how learners used language resources to signal given and new information to achieve effective referential communication: —Effective referential communication is inherently interactive. Speakers must take into account any information the listener already has, and any information the listener needs to know in order to identify the entity being referred to. It is also an aspect of language use that depends on careful decisions by speakers regarding linguistic forms, for example, in Academic Speech Events

Lesson 34

1. What is CALL?

Computer-Assisted Language Learning (CALL) is defined as —the search for and study of applications of the computer in language teaching and learning. (Levy, 1997: 1). CALL covers a broad range of activities which makes it difficult to describe it as a single idea or simple research agenda. CALL has come to encompass issues of materials design, technologies, pedagogical theories and modes of instruction.

Computational Linguistics on the other hand, is the study of language from a computational perspective. CL is concerned with the study of computer systems for understanding and generating natural language (Grisham, 1986). The process of dictionary making today is undergoing dramatic change. It is largely owing to advances in computers and the availability of machine-readable collections of texts known as corpora.

2. Corpus linguistics with examples?

Corpus linguistics is the term used for compiling collections of texts and using them to probe language use. In this context, a corpus is a representative body of texts (corpus is the Latin word for 'body'). More recent corpora contain over 100 million words, and corpora of texts in many languages are being compiled. It is also very essential for twenty-first-century dictionary making and in many other ways, including speech recognition and artificial intelligence.

3. How computer helps in learning translation?

If a machine translation (MT) device were established for even six languages, then $6 \times 5 = 30$ sets of procedures would be needed to translate each language into all of the other five. It is an alternative system -an interlingual translation model - in which the basic semantic elements of each language can be represented abstractly and then encoded into other

languages. This would require twelve procedures - one decoding procedure and one encoding procedure for each of the six languages. This model is simpler than the transfer translation model that requires 30 procedures.

4. Why pragmatics neglect or less explore in computational linguistics?

As compared to morphological, lexical, phonological, grammatical, and semantic features of texts, the features of pragmatics have been less well explored in computational linguistics. One reason for the relative neglect of pragmatics is that modeling the world knowledge and discourse knowledge that speakers rely on when producing and understanding texts is even more challenging than creating models of structural aspects of language. Another is that the kinds of linguistic features by which some pragmatic categories are realized are not always expressed in ways that computers can readily track. We have seen, speakers base some aspects of expression on their beliefs about what addressees know and are thought to have in the forefront of their minds.

Lesson 35

Define information structure? Elaborate the terms New and Given Information?

We use language to state one thing or other. It runs counter to our expectations of how information should be presented in a text. Somehow, it emphasizes the wrong elements or emphasizes the right elements at the wrong time. Speakers and writers are responsible for foregrounding certain elements and back-grounding others, just as a painter uses contrasts of color, shape, and value to highlight some details and de-emphasize others.

New & given information:

Given information is information currently in the forefront of an addressee's mind. New information is information just being introduced into the discourse.

For example:

Alina: [Who ate the biscuits?], [Maria: Hassan ate the biscuits.] In Maria's answer, the noun phrase Hassan represents new information because here it is being introduced into the discourse. By contrast, the biscuits in the reply is given information because it can be presumed to be in the mind of Alina who has introduced it in the previous turn. Given information can be realized in sentences in condensed form, e.g. instead

of saying Hassan ate the biscuits, the speaker could simply say Hassan did, Hassan did it, or Hassan.

Difference between definite and referential expressions?

Definite	Referential
A definite expression refers to something specific or known to both the speaker and the listener.	A referential expression is a more general term that encompasses expressions referring to specific entities as well as those referring to entities in a more general or non-specific way.
It typically involves the use of definite articles such as "the" in English.	It includes both definite and indefinite expressions.
Example: "I saw the cat on the roof." Here, "the cat" refers to a specific cat that both the speaker and the listener are aware of or can identify.	Example 1 (definite reference): "I saw a cat on the roof." Here, "a cat" refers to any cat, but it's still a specific entity. Example 2 (indefinite reference): "I want to buy a book." Here, "a book" refers to any book in general, without specifying a particular one.

Elaborate generic and specific expressions with examples?

Generic sentences express generalizations about kinds and are an important tool for the transmission of knowledge (Gelman, 2003).

Consider the following pairs of sentences:

- (1) a. Tigers are striped.
b. Tigers are on the front lawn.
- (2) a. A tiger is striped.
b. A tiger is on the front lawn.

The interpretation of the first sentence of each pair is intuitively quite different from the interpretation of the second sentence in the pair. In the second sentences, we are talking about some particular tigers: a group of tigers in (1b), some individual tiger in (2b).

There is/are no particular tiger or tigers that we are talking about. A noun phrase may be generic or specific depending on whether it refers to a category or to particular members of a category. For instance: 1) [It describes the bombardier beetle, which squirts a lethal mixture into the face of its enemy.] 2) [The giraffe bent slowly forward and gingerly took a carrot from my palm.]

In the first example, the ‘bombardier beetle’ is generic because it refers to the set of all bombardier beetle; but in the second, which could have been uttered during a visit to a zoo, ‘the giraffe’ refers to a particular animal and is, thus, specific.

Lesson 36

Steps to investigate pragmatics?

Here are the steps to investigate :

- (1) designing an experiment that enables you to collect data which test this hypothesis
- (ii) collecting the data under experimental conditions
- (iii) quantifying the data in order to determine whether or not the hypothesis is proved
- (iv) considering the implications of the findings and whether follow-up experiments would be useful.

Procedure of collecting data for pragmatics analysis?

You may be collecting your data because you wish to test a hypothesis. Data will usually be elicited: by designing the experiments very carefully to make sure that you are collecting data that enable you to measure what you seek to measure rather than some other phenomenon. This means that all the non-relevant variables need to be eliminated. It wouldn't be very useful; for example, if a linguist measured two years old responses to indirect requests only to realize afterwards that the results reflected the extent to which the requests themselves were palatable. There are some ‘dos’ and ‘don'ts’ when it comes to data collection. Similarly, if you tell your friends to have a natural conversation while you record it on tape, you will get anything but a natural conversation. However, there is an ethical issue .

Write names of such topics that can be investigated?

Conversational strategies

Activity types

Focusing on power and distance

Intercultural pragmatics

Context

Folk views of talk

How can you learn by doing pragmatic Data – driven analysis?

Grundy made some comments about ways of learning pragmatics by doing the data-driven pragmatic analysis. Students usually do this at the

end of the year. Their work consists of recording naturally occurring data such as conversations, meetings talk, institutional talk, media talk, an instruct sequence, classroom talk, an interview – in fact, whatever interests them. They may select two minutes of this recording and may describe both the distal context and the immediate talk context in which it occurs. If the data are transcribable and analyzable, students move to the next stage - actually transcribing it. They bring their data to class to try out suggestions from their classmates and to get feedback. When their approach is decided, they write about the analytic parameters they intend to use. For example, a student recorded a mother/small child exchange in which the child was complaining vigorously about having to leave a place she was visiting earlier than she had expected in order to go back home.

Lesson 37

Argumentation theory?

Argumentation Theory: The systematic study of discourse that is intended to persuade rationally, including the study of logical arguments and fallacies and their uses. Argumentation theory is a sub-field of pragmatics since persuading by the use of arguments is one use of language, i.e. Media communication. Argumentation theorists also investigate normative as well as descriptive aspects of language use.

Code model?

Code Model is a model of communication according to which communication involves the transmission of meaning – the message – by encoding it in language or some other codes. The transmitter encodes and transmits the message as a linguistic signal, which the receiver then decodes. According to the model, a coding/decoding process will lead to perfect transmission of the message if the code is shared, encoding and decoding are carried out successfully, and the signal is not degraded by noise or interrupted (Allott, 1988). The terms message, signal, transmitter and receiver are from information theory. For example, A speaker says ‘_Tree’. The hearer would encode it into ‘_Stem, branches, leaves and other parts of a tree’. Encoding can also be on the sentence level.

Explain communicative competence?

Communicative Competence is the ability to communicate in a language. It includes competence with the grammatical forms of the language and the ability to put forms of the language to use in communication (Allott, 1988). This term was invented by the anthropologist and sociolinguist Dell Hymes. Now a popular notion in applied linguistics and language

teaching, where the aim is to teach not just grammar and speech sounds, but also strategies for communicating in that language. This teaching tends not so much to be concerned with pragmatics in a narrow sense (implicature, reference assignment, etc.) as with teaching social conventions about how the language is used.

Demonstrative with examples?

A group of indexical words or phrases that are used to refer, include this, that, these and those (in English). These words are used to make demonstrative phrases, for example, this pen, that car, these keys, those penguins (Allott, 1988). Demonstratives are often accompanied by a gesture that demonstrates the object referred to, pointing, or gazing at the object, i.e. that boy. As with other indexical, the referent of a demonstrative must be worked out to know what proposition the speaker is expressing. The particular demonstrative used restricts the search for referents, in subtle ways. If there is one book on a table the speaker may refer to it with this book or that book.

Brief note on Ellipsis?

When linguistic material is missing from the pronounced form of a phrase or sentence, that phrase/sentence is said to be (syntactically) elliptical. For example, Mary kicked John, and Jane, Bill. Here the verb kicked has been ellipsed. In the next two examples the ellipsed material is in brackets. Jane fought because Mary did (fight). She has stopped now but I don't know why (she stopped).

Lesson 38

Folk pragmatics?

The term folk pragmatics is modeled on folk physics are pre-theoretical expectations about heat, light, how objects move, etc. (Allott, 1988). Folk psychology is per-theoretical expectations about how behavior relates to thoughts and aims. One source of evidence about folk beliefs is how we talk about the domain in question. Ordinary language is rich with words to talk about communication, including: topic, interruption, say, means, i.e. Did you mean that? The vocabulary available for talking about communication differs somewhat from language to language. For example, positive feedback to a conversational partner through short words or encouraging noises is important in conversation, across languages and cultures. Systematic investigation sometimes begins with folk words and transforms them to technical terms.

Difference between formal and experimental pragmatic?

Formal Pragmatics is the study of pragmatic phenomena using techniques and notations from logic and mathematics. Formal pragmatics is largely an extension from formal, model-theoretic semantics into the domain of more context sensitive elements of speaker meaning (Allott, 1988). Formal pragmatics and dynamic approaches to semantics such as Discourse Representation Theory are closely related to date, work in formal pragmatics has only been concerned with a subset of pragmatic topics.

In Experimental Pragmatics, the application of experimental techniques largely forms psycholinguistics to the areas of interest in pragmatics. Techniques used include on-line measures and off-line measures. On-line measures contain eye-tracking and timed responses to stimuli and off-line measures such as the choice from a set of candidates of the best sentence to describe a scene. Experimental pragmatics is a very recent development, although existing psycholinguistic work on disambiguation, semantic illusions and other aspects of interpretation is relevant.

Functions of formal pragmatic?

Formal pragmatics serves two important functions in Habermas's philosophy. (Philosophymasters.com). First, it is the theoretical underpinning of the theory of communicative action, this being a crucial element of his theory of society. Second, it contributes to ongoing philosophical discussions regarding truth, meaning, rationality and action.

What did you by fragments in a sentence? Elaborate your answer with examples?

Linguistic material that is less than a complete sentence is called a fragment. Many utterances are fragments. For example: [- Over here!], [- Water!], [- On the second shelf down, behind the jam. - Nice one!], [- A: How many cats do you have?], [- B: Five.].

Fragments are generally, although not always, linguistic constituents: preposition phrases, noun phrases and so on. Uttering a non-constituent is usually strange: [* shelf down * cats do you] Fragments can be used to express complete propositions (Allott, 1988). For example, a speaker uttering —On the top shelf might mean: The jar is on the top shelf. Or [Where are you going?] Answer can be —to school'. [Did you eat something?]' the answer can be —ate nothing'. It is controversial whether fragments are sometimes or never syntactically elliptical. Example: Are you writing something? —a letter to my friend.

Difference between metaphor and synecdoche?

Metaphor is a type of figurative speech. Typically, a metaphor ascribes to an entity a property that it does not, strictly and literally speaking, possess, although not all metaphors fit this definition. Metaphors are not restricted to any particular type of word or phrase. The metaphorical element of a sentence can be a noun phrase, as in John is an iceberg. Verbs can also be used metaphorically, as in Flintoff drilled the ball to the boundary.

Synecdoche is a figure of speech in which an expression that denotes the part of something is used to refer to the whole. For example, mouth in I've got six hungry mouths to feed. For example: willow for cricket bat in such phrases as to wield the willow. The term synecdoche is sometimes also regarded as including the use of an expression denoting a smaller class to refer to a larger class, and for the converse situation. This is a very broad definition since it would include within synecdoche obvious metaphors such as that animal for that man.

Difference between hyperbole and irony?

Hyperbole is a figure of speech also known as an overstatement, in which a speaker expresses an exaggerated meaning than his words carry in themselves. Intuitively, this is a very common figure of speech. People often say I am starving when they mean that they are merely rather hungry. It's miles and miles is a common way of complaining about even quite short distances. On a Gricean analysis, hyperbole is a blatant violation of the first maxim of quality. For example, the speaker is not literally starving. Or in the second example, the destination might be in the next street but the speaker is just trying to exaggerate.

Irony is a figure of speech seen in the following example: Alistair (stepping out into heavy rain): Another lovely day! The classical conception of irony is that it is a figure of speech in which the speaker means the opposite of what her words mean, and this has been taken as defining. However, this condition is neither necessary nor sufficient for irony. For example, someone sees a car with a broken window and, attempting to draw attention to it in an ironic way says, Look! That car hasn't got a broken window.

LESSON 39

Briefly explain I-principle and M-principle?

In neo-Gricean pragmatics, the I principle or Informativeness-principle is one of a small number of principles that govern communicative behaviour. The I-principle enjoins speakers to say as little as necessary (while bearing in mind the opposing Q- principle). If a speaker's utterance appears to be governed by the I-principle, then the hearer can take it that the speaker expressed herself economically. The speaker can take the utterance as implicating information that is more specific than what is said along stereotypical or expected lines (Allott, 1988). However, when marked expressions are used the M-principle comes into play.

In neo-Gricean pragmatics, the M-principle or Manner principle is one of a small number of heuristics governing communicative behaviour. A brief formulation of the M-principle in terms of instructions to speaker and hearer is as follows: Speaker: Do not say things in an abnormal way without reason. Addressee: What is said in an abnormal way indicates an abnormal situation.

Q-principle and R-principle?

In neo-Gricean pragmatics, the Q principle or Quantity Principle is one of a small number of principles thought to govern communicative behaviour and the production of implicatures. Q-principle is: Make your contribution sufficient; Say as much as you can (Given R). The Q-principle is intended to subsume Grice's first maxim of quantity and his first and second manner maxims. The Q-principle enjoins the speaker to maximize the amount of information encoded. It is, therefore, described as a lower-bounding principle, and is postulated to be what is responsible for implicatures

In Neo-Gricean pragmatics, the R principle or 'Relation-principle' is one of the small set of principles which govern communicative behaviour. On one formulation, the R-principle is: Make your contribution necessary; Say no more than you must (given the Q-principle). The R-principle enjoins the speaker to minimize the amount of linguistic material uttered, or more generally to minimize the effort involved in speech. It is, therefore, described as an 'upper-bounding' principle.

Under-determinacy thesis of linguistic?

. In the linguistic underdeterminacy thesis, there is general agreement that for a hearer to arrive at the proposition expressed, reference must be assigned to indexicals and ambiguities must be resolved in examples like: 'I decided to sell the bat here last week.' (Allott, 1988). The linguistic

underdeterminacy thesis is the claim that even abstracting away from indexicals and ambiguity, the proposition expressed by the speaker in uttering a sentence goes beyond the linguistic meaning of the sentence. The linguistic underdeterminacy thesis is correct and that generally sentences uttered must be enriched by pragmatic inference to arrive at the proposition expressed (Allott, 1988). On either view, the proposition expressed by a speaker cannot be read off the sentence uttered, therefore, it must be inferred partly on the basis of the sentence uttered.

What is manifestness and markedness in relevance theory?

In relevance theory, manifestness is the degree to which an assumption is accessible in a context on the basis of perception or of inference. An assumption is manifest to a given individual whether he is capable to make an assumption about false or true. The assumption need not, in fact, to be true: false assumptions can be entertained as true. Therefore, manifestness is a weaker notion than knowledge. Manifestness is a matter of degree. The more likely an assumption is to be entertained, the more highly manifest it is (Allott, 1988).

Markedness is the extent to which an item in a language is out-of-the-ordinary. Unmarked items are normal, whereas marked items are relatively unusual. For example, the word 'kine' is marked, while the word 'cattle' is relatively unmarked. The idea that some linguistic items are more natural and common than others was an important feature of the linguistic theory of Roman Jakobson. In pragmatics, it has been argued that an utterance containing marked items should have a marked meaning.

Misfire in Austin's work?

In Austin's work, a misfire is one of the two ways in which a speech act can be unsuccessful. According to speech-act theory, there are felicity conditions on speech acts. If certain conditions are not met, then no speech act is performed. The relevant conditions are that: There is a conventional procedure with a conventional effect and the participants and situation are appropriate, according to that procedure; and the procedure is carried out correctly and completely

Prosody?

Prosody is a variation in the rhythm, stress, and intonation of speech at the level of utterances, rather than at the lexical level. The interaction of prosody with syntactic structure, and the effect that prosody has on the interpretation of utterances are not well understood in general. For

example, the difference in stress between REcord' (the noun) and reCORD' (the verb) is not a prosodic difference. But the difference in stress positions in the following examples is prosodic: Alice eats GRASS. Alice EATS grass.

LESSON 40

Write down the name of key thinkers in pragmatics? (UNIVERSITY ALSO CAN ASK ABOUT THEIR WORK IN PRAGMATICS)

[Prepare lesson 40 thoroughly]

1. John langshaw Austin
2. Noam ayram Chomsky
3. Herbert Paul Grice
4. Stephen C. levinson
5. John rogers Searle

LESSON 41

Focus of socio-pragmatics?

Sociopragmatics focuses primarily on the social rules of speaking. How communication of pragmatic meaning involves speakers' presentation of their identities (LoCastro, 2012). Convergence to the social norms occurs where the speaker indicates a desire to be a member of a community. While interacting with other community members, the speaker adapts norms and nonstandard language unwillingly. The categories used to describe the features of human beings, such as ethnicity, race, gender, socioeconomic background/class, are abstractions. Those abstractions become real or transparent as they are enacted through our choices of clothing, hairstyles, posture, lifestyles, and most assuredly how we use language. Word choice, prosody, tone of voice, degree of grammatical complexity, and interactional routines are components of socio-pragmatics

Role of socio-cultural factors in identity?

language learners may experience difficulties in relation to their L1 identities in acquiring a second language. For instance, American women who were working or studying in Japan realized that their culture was the major language barrier. They had to face unexamined, external expectations, both at the individual and group level. Even their teaching materials reproduced the gender assumptions of the local, Japanese cultural values. Non-native speakers of an L2 may seek to maintain their ethnolinguistic identity owing to pressures from their L1 community as

many speakers use English as Lingua Franca. Maintaining a —foreign accent allows the speakers to avoid heavy sanctions for inappropriately signaling pragmatic meaning as a nonnative speaker. Examples of ethnolinguistic identity maintenance: code switching and maintenance of sociolinguistic markers in speech.

Action theory?

All theories of pragmatic meaning include a basic notion, labeled shared background knowledge, world knowledge, or, common ground (LoCastro 2012). Action and Activity Joint actions can consist of speech events, in which conversants —negotiate deals, gossip, get to know each other (Clark 1996: 17). However, when the frame for a joint activity is not shared, then the participants even at a supermarket may not be able to achieve their goals. Coordination problems at the level of local joint actions are multiple, the primary one being —what the speakers mean and what their addressees understand them to mean (Clark, 1996: 73). Mis-coordination can be wiped out through language, the conventional signaling system par excellence, or through coordination devices such as gestures. Features of language in use – the length of clauses, the rhythmic placement of turn-taking cues, and tag questions – develop out of the need to achieve joint activities.

Identity work in educational context?

Identity in an L2 context may be problematic for learners of the L2, even in the foreign language learning environment. The word —identity does not commonly come into the media talk, yet it is clearly part of the discourse, unexamined though it may be even by the participants. It is such populations, of international or nonnative speakers as residents within the receiving country/ culture. Particularly, if the language is that of a high prestige country, it experiences the most problems revolving around the notion of identity and accommodation to the local context. Talmy's study (2009) provides a lead-in for discussion regarding the relevance of identity studies for language educators. It depicts the learning environment of ESL students at a Honolulu high school, but the situation is by no means unique to that school (LoCastro, 2012). Menard-Warwick (2009) states that resistance to learning develops when educational systems fail to take into account identity.

LESSON 42

Gender in language use?

The term —gendered‖ clearly communicates the notion that gender is an action, something that one does, i.e. gender in the media, in the workplace, in religion, and in the family (LoCastro, 2012). To understand ‘Gender’ we need to consider that how children acquire an awareness of gender at very early ages. Female children learn that pink is the color for girls. This starts as nonverbal cues of femaleness translates into differences in language use. Tannen (1993) claimed that, though there is no question that dominance by men of women exists, it is not possible to attribute the cause of the enactment of dominance to specific linguistic realizations, For example, indirectness, interruptions, or topic shifts. According to LoCastro (2012) many books have been written on the gender-biased language in English, i.e. excessive use of ‘He’ rather than ‘She’.

Gender in western cultural context?

In Western cultural contexts, stereo typically, it is men who are viewed as being more likely to dominate in mixed-gender groupings. Or sometimes, female participants exclude men from the conversation by selecting topics such as ‘choices of dresses, personal feelings or house chores’. In Western Societies, researches have been conducted to differentiate between male/female behavior, verbal and non-verbal both. Historically, in efforts to describe and explain the discrimination against women in U.S. society, one focus was women’s use of language. One more perspective is, women in the U.S. experience the binary choice between being addressed by either Mrs. or Miss plus their family name.

Gender perspection in Japan?

In Japan, women use ‘Respectful Prefixes’ known as honorifics which are based on ‘politeness’ in a formal context (Maynard, 1990). According to IDE and Inonu (1991), Japanese women of higher social status tend to use more elaborated honorifics to signal beauty, grace, and dignity. IDE uses the term —beautification‖ honorifics, a form of gendered language use that, in her view, does not correlate with dominance in Japan.

Use of English in India & Pakistan?

It has been observed in India and Pakistan that English is used as a dominant language in the elite class which shows that this class is influenced by western culture. Errington states that language is sometimes —gender-neutral‖ in Asian Culture. Examples of the gender-neutral features are: The lack of gender marking with articles, or morphemes on nouns; specific lexeme like —human‖ or —person‖ are not marked for feminine or masculine. The local greeting is how

many —older and younger siblings do you have|| rather than how many —brothers and sisters do you have

Relation of language & gender by Cameron?

Cameron (2005) claims the real worldview of gender, nor the institutionalized support for discrimination on the basis of gender.

Cameron argues —the alleged problem of male–female misunderstanding appears to be common in societies where the influence of feminism has made gender relations a matter of contestation

How language work as political discourse ? OR language in politician?

Political discourse is a genre of language in use which is often viewed as a transparent vehicle used by politicians to preserve or to seek to create their own power. Speech of president of a country is supposed to maintain the face of the speaker as the main governmental leader of the country (LoCastro 2012). The study of language and power also looks at how linguistic structures create reality, a reality that maintains and extends power relations in a society. The study of language and power is often designated as CDA (LoCastro, 2012). There are numerous ways in which power is enacted in discourse: doctor– patient interactions, immigration checkpoints, and political campaigns. Or the use of tag questions, turn taking, adjacency pairs, introduction and uptake of topics, politeness strategies, and choice of formal or informal speaking styles

LESSON 43

Why is pragmatic competence important for 2nd language learners?

According to LoCastro (2012), pragmatic competence for second language learners is important even more than acquiring high linguistic proficiency in the L2. Pragmatic Competence helps the learners to use the correct phrases in a particular situation. In this situation, a well-phrased question, asking for information about what bus to take, not only goes far to obtain the correct information, but also can help to break down barriers. According to LoCastro (2012), during learning, the learners should be given a chance to bring in personal experience and make connections with the real world of conversational interactions. To sum up, we can say that Pragmatic Competence cannot be ignored in everyday conversation. Can pragmatics competence be taught or learnt in instructed contexts? LoCastro (2012) has focused on instructed development, that is, in classrooms, or other contexts organized for learning, as the acquisition of pragmatic competence in a naturalistic environment. Kasper and Rose

(2002) argue that L2 pragmatics can be taught. According to Kanaggy (1999), the children in Japan are taught the cultural practices and the pragmatic meanings of the routines in classrooms including nonverbal behaviors. Children cannot learn to say —thank you— without an adult in their immediate environment instructing them about the phrase and its context of use.

Reasons why ELT field has to revise its goals and teachers need to practice?

McKay (2002) lists three reasons the ELT field has had to revise its goals and teachers their practices:

- ❖ □ Learners of English as a second/foreign language do not have to also learn the cultures of native speakers of English; □
- ❖ English is not —owned— by native speakers only □
- ❖ The main goal of learners is to communicate their own ideas and cultures to others, not become native speakers of the language.

What can be done to facilitate the teaching and learning of pragmatics competence?

According to LoCastro (2012), teachers do not take the pain to develop pragmatic competence because they are non-natives and have not experienced the environment of the target language. If ESL teachers are given a chance of one- or two-months training abroad in that environment, they can be beneficial for the learners. Second point that LoCastro has mentioned is —Awareness Raising— among teachers because there is a lack of teacher training programs. Teachers should be properly guided about the selection of material, the choice of activities and the importance of pragmatic competence. In the next step, language teachers would build the awareness in the learners. For example, the skills in the primary language and culture to help them become more capable of understanding and enacting pragmatic meanings in the target language (Lo Castro, 2012)

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